



“Social Exclusion and Space”

from Ali Madanipour, Goran Cars, and Judith Allen (eds.), *Social Exclusion in European Cities: Processes, Experiences, and Responses* (1998)

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EDITORS' INTRODUCTION



Exclusion of groups of city residents from access to all that the city has to offer on the basis of race, class, religion, income, gender, national origin, sexual orientation, or some other characteristic has been and continues to be a pressing problem in cities throughout the world. University of Newcastle urban design professor Ali Madanipour's observations on spatial aspects of social exclusion in contemporary European cities is relevant to understanding social exclusion in cities everywhere in the world both today and in the past. It is also a finely nuanced piece that illustrates how urban space is related to social, cultural, economic, and political forces that urban planners and designers should consider in their plans and designs.

Throughout history, many of the most dynamic urban societies have welcomed foreigners and included them in the life of the city. H.D.F. Kitto notes that twenty-five centuries ago foreigners (metics) participated in most aspects of the life of the Greek polis (p. 39). They lived throughout the polis rather than in geographically segregated foreigners' neighborhoods, worked as merchants and tradesmen on an equal footing with Athenian citizens, and contributed significantly to the philosophical, scientific, literary, and artistic achievements of Athens's golden age. But they were not Athenian citizens and were excluded from participation in Athens's otherwise extraordinarily inclusive and democratic political institutions.

In his magisterial study titled *Cities and Civilization*, British planning professor Sir Peter Hall argues that the presence of a diverse group of foreigners or outsiders from the dominant culture has been a crucial ingredient in short periods of great cultural and technical efflorescence that characterize cities' golden ages. Hall describes, for example, how Jewish entrepreneurs who had previously worked in New York City's garment industry were largely responsible for creating the motion picture industry. They were able to transfer understanding of how to respond quickly to the changing tastes of America's large lower-income urban immigrant population they had learned in New York City's garment industry and quickly turn advances in technology to good advantage. Migrating to Hollywood in the early twentieth century, they created a new industry providing silent movies to a mass audience willing to spend a hard-earned nickel for Saturday night entertainment. Another of Hall's examples involves Blacks from the impoverished Mississippi River delta. As they migrated up the Mississippi to Chicago during the twentieth century, Blacks from the Delta brought blues music with them. Little blues clubs in Chicago's Black belt reflected their sadness and helped them cope with discrimination and the unsettling conditions of urban life. Blues music morphed into rock and roll and made a huge contribution to popular culture worldwide. Today Indian programmers in Silicon Valley, Chinese scientists in London, and Latin American novelists in New York City continue to enrich their host cultures and the entire world.

In many cities, law and/or cultural norms have excluded some social groups at some time in history, including the present day. Racial discrimination was, and remains, an acute problem in many cities throughout the world. Friedrich Engels describes the brutal effect of class discrimination on the working class in Manchester, England

in 1844 (p. 53). Black sociologist W.E.B. Du Bois describes in painful detail how Blacks in late nineteenth-century Philadelphia were spatially isolated in just a few wards of the city and systematically barred from white schools, most public facilities, and well-paying jobs for which they were well qualified (p. 124). Members of the Chicago School of sociology like Louis Wirth (p. 115) described the psychological damage spatial separation and social exclusion caused for immigrants from central and southern Europe in early twentieth-century Chicago. Mike Davis describes discrimination against poor, minorities, and immigrants in contemporary Los Angeles (p. 212). Albert Camarillo describes exclusion of Blacks and Latinos in contemporary majority-minority Los Angeles (p. 139). David Harvey describes how some groups are denied the "right to the city" in cities throughout the world (p. 270). Discrimination on the basis of ethnicity, religion, gender, and national origin continues in Europe and North America not only against Blacks and Hispanics, Jews and Muslims, but against Algerian, Pakistani, Turkish, East European, and other groups.

As globalization continues to bring people from throughout the world into closer contact, and as the pace of immigration increases, the issue of exclusion becomes ever more pressing. In what different ways are some people excluded from participation in the life of the cities where they live? How is exclusion expressed in urban space? What can be done about it? These are questions Madanipour addresses.

Madanipour distinguishes between economic discrimination, in which members of a group are excluded from employment, political discrimination, in which they are excluded from political power by being denied voting rights or full political representation, and cultural exclusion, in which the group members are marginalized from the symbols, meanings, rituals, and discourses of the dominant culture. Just as Sherry Arnstein (p. 279) sees citizen participation in decision-making as a "ladder" with rungs ascending from degrees of nonparticipation to full citizen power, Madanipour sees social exclusion as a continuum from complete lack of integration at one end of the spectrum to full integration into society at the other.

While some societal rules about exclusion are benign – the right of strangers to enter a person's home at will is unacceptable in almost all cultures and few would deny a women's support group the right to exclude males – Madanipour argues that exclusion of groups from the opportunities and advantages that cities possess is both painful to members of the group and damaging to the society at large, which fails to take full advantage of talent available to it and wastes resources on conflict and social control.

Exclusion frequently has a spatial dimension. Members of a group are sometimes excluded from areas of a city by law as when medieval Venetian Jews were restricted to a neighborhood on one Venetian island where a foundry (ghetto) existed. While reports of a sign saying "No dogs or Chinese" in Huangpu Park in the British concession of Shanghai is apocryphal, exclusion of Chinese from the park (along with dogs and bicycles) in the late nineteenth and early twentieth century was not. Even when people are legally free to enter areas of the city, as Mike Davis (p. 212) points out, subtle and not-so-subtle signs and cues may signal that members of a particular group are not welcome.

Madanipour suggests two potentially promising theoretical approaches to promote greater inclusion of marginalized groups into urban space – decommodifying space so that the private real estate market plays a less decisive role in where different groups are located within the city and deliberate city planning to de-spatialize social exclusion. Both are easier said than done. Most public council housing in England, provided by liberal governments as a necessity rather than a market commodity, has now been privatized. Rich and poor in the People's Republic of China live in separate neighborhoods.

Madanipour concludes his analysis by advocating inclusionary practices – to assure that outsiders are more fully included in urban societies based on his broad approaches. Building inclusionary housing units for low- and moderate-income households in neighborhoods they could otherwise not afford is an example of the first strategy. As director of a nonprofit organization named the Suburban Action Institute, Paul Davidoff put into practice the advocacy planning he advocated (p. 481) and succeed in getting racially integrated subsidized housing projects built in previously middle and upper income all white suburban neighborhoods, but only a few dozen units. Inclusionary zoning ordinances in the United States require condominium developers to set aside a percentage of new units for low- and moderate income households to purchase for less than their market value – effectively decommodifying space, an example of Madanipour's second strategy. But few cities have local laws like this, they apply only to new construction, and for a narrow segment of the population that needs assistance.

Paradoxically, Singapore, a vibrant capitalist country, is the great exception. Three quarters of all the housing in Singapore was built by the government and sold at prices well below market value on the condition that every building would have a mix of Chinese, Malay, and Indian residents proportional to the total of each ethnic group's share of the total Singapore population – and that on resale the units would continue to pass to the ethnic group originally specified. Singapore has much better housing units than most of the region, affordable to Singapore citizens, and ethnically integrated down to the building level.

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For historical background on social exclusion in America, see Jon Gjerde, *Major Problems in American Immigration and Ethnic History* (New York: Houghton Mifflin, 1998). Studies of contemporary race, class, and gender issues in the United States include Margaret L. Andersen and Patricia Hill Collins, *Race, Class, and Gender: An Anthology*, 7th edn (New York: Wadsworth, 2008), Roberta Fiske-Rusciano, *Experiencing Race, Class, and Gender in the United States* (New York: Wadsworth, 2008), Conrad Kottak and Kathryn Kozaitis, *On Being Different: Diversity and Multiculturalism in the North American Mainstream* (New York: McGraw-Hill, 2008) and Paula S. Rothenberg, *Race, Class, and Gender in the United States: An Integrated Study*, 7th edn (New York: Worth Publishers, 2006). A classic study of European immigration to the east coast is Oscar Lewis, *The Uprooted* (New York: Atlantic Monthly Press, 1951). Ronald Takaki, *Strangers from a Different Shore* (Boston: Back Bay Books, 2003) is an excellent study of the Asian-American immigration experience. Takaki's *A Different Mirror: A History of Multicultural America*, revised edition (Boston: Back Bay Books, 2008) expands and elaborates on his earlier work.

Books on social exclusion in Europe include Joan Wallach Scott, *The Politics of the Veil* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2010), Katherine Ewing, *Stolen Honor: Stigmatizing Muslim Men in Berlin* (Palo Alto: Stanford University Press, 2008), Sako Musterd, Alan Murie, and Christian Kesteloot (eds.), *Neighbourhoods of Poverty: Urban Social Exclusion and Integration in Comparison* (London: Palgrave-MacMillan, 2006), Hans Lucht, *Darkness before Daybreak: African Migrants Living on the Margins in Southern Italy Today* (Berkeley, CA: University of California Press, 2011), Trica Danielle Keaton, *Muslim Girls and the Other France: Race, Identity Politics, and Social Exclusion* (Bloomington, IN: Indiana University Press, 2006), and Steen Paul Mangeen, *Social Exclusion and Inner City Europe* (New York: Palgrave-MacMillan, 2004).



This chapter concentrates on the relationship between social exclusion and space, exploring some of the frameworks which institute barriers to spatial practices. Its particular emphasis is on the way these

barriers to movement are intertwined with social exclusionary processes. This shows that exclusion should be regarded as a socio-spatial phenomenon.

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DIMENSIONS OF SOCIAL EXCLUSION

There is little disagreement on some of the major problems facing European cities. Challenges of competition from a global economy marked by a multiplicity of competitors and the European response in the form of moving into an integrative partnership are both aspects of globalization which have reshaped the social and spatial geography of cities. The restructuring of cities and societies, however, has been a costly exercise, as it has been parallel with a growing social divide, long-term unemployment and joblessness, especially for men, and casualization of work, undermining the quality of life for large groups of the population. These symptoms have led to concerns for the fragmentation of the social world, where some members of society are excluded in the 'mainstream' and where this exclusion is painful for the excluded and harmful for society as a whole.

Yet the concept of social exclusion still appears to be in need of clarification due to the variety of the cultural and political contexts in which it has been used. For some it is the question of poverty which should remain the focus of attention, while for others social exclusion makes sense in the broader perspective of citizenship and integration into the social context. Social exclusion, therefore, is not necessarily equated with economic exclusion, although this form of exclusion is often the cause of a wider suffering and deprivation.

As a concept, social exclusion still suffers from a lack of clarity, as it is interpreted and analysed differently. We come across a degree of ambiguity especially between poverty and social exclusion. Some researchers, who have concentrated on the problems of poverty, find social exclusion a vague concept which, for whatever reason, takes attention away from poverty and deprivation. Furthermore, it is argued that the concept of social exclusion is rooted in a certain intellectual and cultural tradition (Catholic, solidarity) and a particular welfare regime (corporatist) and as such is not shared by other (especially liberal) cultures and welfare regimes. On the other hand, those who find social exclusion a useful concept criticize an emphasis on poverty as too narrow. They seek to open the discussion to accommodate the general issues of social integration and citizenship. To confront this ambiguity and contradiction, we need to clarify the concept of social exclusion first.

The overall constitution of the social world is such that different forms of exclusion are fundamental to any social relationship. For example, the division of social life into public and private spheres means drawing boundaries round some spatial and temporal domains and excluding others from these domains. In this way, exclusion becomes an operating mechanism, an institutionalized form of controlling access: to places, to activities, to resources and information. Individual actions as well as legal, political and cultural structures rely heavily upon this operating mechanism and reproduce it constantly. Institutionally organized or individually improvised, it appears that we are all engaged in exclusionary processes that are essential for our social life.

Yet we know that, whatever their importance, these exclusionary processes work in close relationship with inclusionary activities to maintain a social fabric. Maintaining the continuity of the social world is only possible through a combination of and a fine balance between these two processes. At the individual level, seeking privacy without seeking social interaction would lead to isolation. At the social level, exclusion without inclusion would lead to a collapse of social structures. What is a negative state of affairs, therefore, is not exclusion in all its forms but an absence of inclusionary processes, a lack of a balance between exclusion and inclusion.

But what are the dimensions of the social world in which inclusion and exclusion take place? It is often mentioned that social exclusion is multidimensional. To be able to identify and analyse these dimensions, we should look at the dimensions of the social world in which exclusion and inclusion take place. We can identify economic, political and cultural arenas as the three broad spheres of social life in which social inclusion and exclusion are manifested and, therefore, can be analysed and understood.

In the economic arena, the main form of inclusion is access to resources, which is normally secured through employment. The main form of exclusion, therefore, is a lack of access to employment. Marginalization and long-term exclusion from the labour market lead to an absence of opportunity for production and consumption, which can in turn lead to acute forms of social exclusion.

Exclusion from the economic arena is often considered to be a crucial and painful form of exclusion. Poverty and unemployment are therefore frequently at the heart of most discussions of social exclusion, to

the extent that poverty and economic exclusion are equated with social exclusion. There is a tendency in the literature to use these terms interchangeably. It is true that long-term economic exclusion can break down the political and cultural ties of the affected individuals and social groups. It is important, however, to note that there are other forms of social exclusion in political and cultural spheres.

In the political arena, the main form of inclusion is to have a stake in power, to participate in decision making. In European liberal democracies, inclusion is often ensured through voting and other processes associated with it. The most obvious form of social exclusion, therefore, is lack of political representation. This may take various forms: from the under-representation of women in parliaments and governments, to the complete exclusion of immigrant groups from political decision making; from the argument by smaller political parties for a new system of representation which would allow them a fairer share of power, to a withdrawal from political participation by those excluded in the economic and cultural arenas.

In the cultural arena, the main form of inclusion is to share a set of symbols and meanings. The most powerful of these have historically been language, religion and nationality. Some of the new sets of symbolic relationships include the way individual and group identities are formed through association with patterns of consumption, from necessities of daily life to cultural products. For example, in what has been termed a visual culture, aesthetics of social behaviour has become an essential part of social life. The main form of exclusion in the cultural arena, therefore, becomes a marginalization from these symbols, meanings, rituals and discourses. The forms of cultural exclusion vary widely, as experienced by minorities whose language, race, religion and lifestyle are different from those of the larger society.

Different social groups may experience varying degrees of these different but highly interrelated forms of social exclusion. The most acute forms of social exclusion, however, are those that simultaneously include elements of economic, political and cultural exclusion. The other end of the spectrum is occupied by citizens who are fully integrated in the mainstream of society through these three dimensions. Between these two extremes, there is a wide range of variations in which individuals and groups are included in some areas but excluded in others. A major trend is that more and more people suffer from anxiety and

uncertainty, as there are ever larger numbers in transition from inclusion to exclusion.

SPATIALITY OF SOCIAL EXCLUSION

Social exclusion, therefore, should be understood in its political, economic and cultural dimensions. Exclusion from the political arena, i.e. the denial of participation in decision making, can alienate individuals and social groups. In the cultural arena, exclusion from common channels of cultural communication and integration can have similar effects. The exclusion from work and its impacts are widely known as undermining the ability of individuals and households to participate actively in social processes. When combined, these forms of exclusion can create an acute form of social exclusion which keeps the excluded at the very margins of the society, a phenomenon all too often marked by a clear spatial manifestation in deprived inner city or peripheral areas ...

[...]

In the past, this spatiality of social exclusion had led to attempts to dismantle such pockets of deprivation without necessarily dismantling the causes of deprivation or the forces bringing them together in particular enclaves. The dismantling of spatial concentrations of deprivation has been a continuous trend: from Baron Haussmann's wide boulevards in the middle of poor neighbourhoods in the nineteenth century, to the slum clearance programmes and more subtle forms of housing management in the twentieth century. These have been attempts to despatialize social exclusion, which is evidence of its inherent and re-emerging spatiality. The latest form of despatialization and re-spatialization of social exclusion is homelessness, a process in which some groups are cut off from their previous socio-spatial contexts and are apparently without a home base. They, however, have clustered in particular parts of cities, spatializing again what was thought to be despatialized.

SPATIALITY AND DIFFERENCE

The absence of homogeneity is most apparent in cities, as they are sites of difference. Large cities have often grown by attracting people from around the country in which they are located or even from around the world. Cities have always been known as the

meeting places of different people. As Aristotle noted: 'A city is composed of different kinds of men; similar people cannot bring a city into existence.' The unprecedented growth of cities since the nineteenth century has permanently brought forward the issue of difference in the city as a feature of urban life. Wirth, in his celebrated theory of urbanism, saw heterogeneity as a determining feature of the city, along with population size and density. For him, the city was a 'melting-pot of races, peoples, and cultures, and a most favourable breeding-ground of new biological and cultural hybrids'. In the city, individual differences have 'not only [been] tolerated but rewarded'. Such emphasis on the heterogeneity of cities has led to conceiving it as a world of strangers.

Two sets of reactions to the diversity in the city can be identified: there are those who have tried to impose an order onto it so that it becomes understandable and manageable and those who promote a celebration of diversity. However, both these reactions, which indeed represent modernist and postmodernist thinking, have been unable to deal with the issue of social marginalization and exclusion. Concentrations of disadvantage have remained in cities, despite the large-scale redevelopment schemes of the rationalist tendency and the more sensitive spatial transformations which followed. On the one hand, emphasis on the eradication of difference and seeing the city as a melting pot has led to undermining sensitivities and to disruption of lives. On the other hand, the emphasis on difference has led to social fragmentation and tribalism. Both have failed to cure the wounds of those living on the edge of the society.

BARRIERS TO SPATIAL PRACTICES

But how do we analyse space? There are many gaps and dilemmas associated with understanding space. From the centuries-old philosophical divide between absolute and relational space, to the gap between mental and real space, between physical and social space, between abstract and differential space, to the relationship between space and mass, space and time, and the variety of perspectives from which space can be studied, all bear the possibility of confusion and collision. It is possible to show, however, that to avoid the gaps and dilemmas associated with understanding space, we need to concentrate on the processes which produce the built environment. By analysing the

intersection between space production and everyday life practices, we will be able to arrive at a dynamic understanding of space. We will then be able to understand and explain material space and its social and psychological contexts and attributes.

The question of social exclusion and integration, it can be argued, largely revolves around access. It is access to decision making, access to resources, and access to common narratives, which enable social integration. Many of these forms of access have clear spatial manifestations, as space is the site in which these different forms of access are made possible or denied. There is a direct relationship between our general sense of freedom and well-being with the choices open to us in our spatial practices. The more restricted our social options, the more restricted will be our spatial options, and the more excluded we feel or become. On the other hand, if we have a wide range of social options, we would have a wide range of places to go to, places for living, working and entertainment. Two extreme cases of the existence or absence of spatial freedom may be jetsetting executives versus prisoners. Whereas for one, the world may be shrinking to seem like a global village open for communication and interaction, for the other the world outside is large and out of reach. For most of us, however, our spaces are a continuum from accessible to non-accessible places. The space around us is a collection of open, closed or controlled places.

But how is the urban space organized and how are spatial practices controlled and regulated? We all have an understanding of the places where we can or cannot go, as over the years through our spatial practices, we have accumulated a knowledge about places and their patterns of accessibility. The physical organization of space, using elements from the natural or the built environment, has been socially and symbolically employed to put visible and strict limits on our spatial practices. For example, topography has always been used to institute difference and segregation, from ancient times when the hilltops were the place of gods for Greeks and Mesopotamians, to our own time when they are the living places of the rich and powerful. There is also a mental space, our perceptions of space. This may be regulated through codes and signs, preventing us from entering some spaces through outright warning or more subtle deterrents. Mental space may also be controlled through our fears and perceptions of activities in places. For example, we may be hesitant to enter an

expensive-looking shopping centre if we do not have access to the resources needed for the activities there, even though there may not be any physical barriers which would prevent us from going there. A third form of barrier to our spatial behaviour is social control, which can range from legal prohibitions on entering places to constructing formal barriers along publicly recognized borders. National borders and public-private boundaries are examples of this form. A combination of formalized rules and regulations, informal codes and signs, and fears and desires control our spatial behaviour and alert us to the limitations on our access. Through these, we have come to know whether we can enter a place, are welcomed in another and excluded from others. More restrictions on our access to our surroundings would bring about the feeling of being trapped, alienated and excluded from our social space.

Space has, therefore, a major role in the integration or segregation of urban society. It is a manifestation of social relationships while affecting and shaping the geometries of these relationships. This leads us to the argument that social exclusion cannot be studied without also looking at spatial segregation and exclusion. Social cohesion or exclusion, therefore, are indeed socio-spatial phenomena ... We know that all human societies have their own forms of social and spatial exclusion. So exclusionary processes per se are not the source of social fragmentation and disintegration. It is the absence of social integration which causes social exclusion, as individuals do not find the possibility and channels of participating in the mainstream society.

GLOBAL AND NATIONAL SPACE

National borders are the largest means of socio-spatial exclusion. The modern nation state exerts an exclusionary process along its boundaries, from lines on maps to barbed wires on the landscape. Those who are left outside need to go through special checks and controls to be allowed in. The same applies to those who are in and want to go out. The control of cross-border movement by the nation state, or by blocks of nation states as in the European Union, is a form of exclusion legitimated openly through political processes. A national territory, therefore, is a spatial manifestation of an institutionalized exclusionary process.

Other administrative boundaries, although potentially exclusionary, do not have such a forceful character, nor are they associated with such a degree of public awareness, such historical significance, or guarded by military might. No other form of exclusion has been associated with such high costs in human life, sacrifice and misery. Attempts to change or to protect national borders have inflicted the highest cost in human lives in the twentieth century, as experienced by two world wars and many regional conflicts. The birth of a nation state, when the multi-ethnic empires and states break up, can be a bloody process in which every means is used to exclude others. The surgical subdivision of national space, whether through external forces as in postwar Germany or by exploding internal forces as in the former Yugoslavia, has been equally difficult for those excluded from what they have regarded as their home.

In the national space enclosed within these boundaries, narratives of nationalism have been employed to legitimize the exclusion of others beyond these boundaries. Indeed, exclusionary narratives, which determine how 'we' are different from others, are often essential in binding individuals together as a group. The most dangerous of these narratives has been the rhetoric of hatred against other nations, races and groups. But there are many such exclusionary narratives which do not necessarily promote violence and hatred and still have a binding power. With these narratives, which often rely on a common historical experience, large groups of people have been associated with each other. The focal point of this association has been the nation state, which holds the power of controlling the national borders.

The narratives of nationalism attempt to create homogeneity out of an enormous diversity. As individuals have come together to create a democratic civil society, such narratives have helped the organization of modern democratic states ...

[...]

NEIGHBOURHOODS, MARKETS AND REGULATION

At the local level, by following two processes, land and property development on the one hand and spatial planning on the other hand, we can see how a socio-spatial geometry of difference and segregation, which is the foundation of exclusion, emerges. We come

across the term neighbourhood in a variety of distinct but interrelated usages. In one sense, the term is used loosely to address a locality. This daily usage is based on the images and understandings by individuals and groups of their surroundings. This is a view from below and, as such, can lead us to see a city as a collection of overlapping neighbourhoods. Research on people's perception of neighbourhood shows major differences according to age, gender, class and ethnicity. At the other end of the scale, there is a concept of neighbourhood from above, from the viewpoint of such experts as managers, planners and designers. Here neighbourhood refers to a particular part of a town and is used to understand urban structure and change in urban society. It is also used as a tool for management. From this viewpoint, the city is seen as a collection of segregated neighbourhoods.

Neighbourhoods as constituent parts of cities have long been the focus of attention by urban designers and planners. Drawing upon historic precedents and for practical reasons, neighbourhood has provided them with an intimate scale of the urban whole to understand and to deal with. Historically, neighbourhoods have been the sites and physical manifestations of close social relationships and so have been praised by town planners, especially those who have looked nostalgically to the feudal bonds of the medieval towns and the communal bonds of working-class neighbourhoods in the industrial city. A dichotomy emerged as a result of the unprecedented growth of the cities: between *gesellschaft* and *gemeinschaft*, between the alienation of the big city and the romanticized, small communities of towns and villages. To recreate the social cohesion of these small communities, it was thought, cities should be broken into smaller parts, into neighbourhoods. On the other hand, it was thought that the communitarianism of small neighbourhoods could overcome the individualism of the suburbs, those bourgeois utopias.

It is this association of neighbourhood as a physical entity with neighbourhood as a cohesive social unit that led to a series of reformist ideas throughout the twentieth century. From the widely used, and discredited, concept of neighbourhood unit, to Lynch's districts, which are still promoted to make cities legible, and today's urban villages and new urbanist neighbourhoods, there has been a long line of managerial attempts to promote social cohesion by spatial organization.

Along with this promotion of spatial subdivision by town planning, there has been a promotion of socio-spatial segregation by market forces through the ways in which space is produced, exchanged and used. The producers of space, such as volume housebuilders, tend to build in large-scale housing estates, creating an urban fabric which is a collection of different subdivisions. The land and property markets have operated so as to ensure the segregation of income groups and social classes. Commodification of space has led to different patterns of access to space and hence a differential spatial organization and townscape. Wherever there has been a tendency to decommodify space, as in the postwar social housing schemes, town planners and designers have ensured that a degree of spatial subdivision still prevailed.

We can therefore identify two processes: a land and property market which sees space as a commodity and tends to create socio-spatial segregation through differential access to this commodity, and a town planning and design tendency to regulate and rationalize space production by the imposition of some form of order. When we look at these two processes together, the picture which emerges is a collectivization of difference, of exclusion, which can lead to enclaves for the rich and the creation of new ghettos for the poor.

[...]

PUBLIC AND PRIVATE SPACE

Another form of socio-spatial exclusion, which is enforced with a rigour somewhat similar to the protection of national borders, is the separation between public and private territories. We guard our private spheres from intruders by whatever means, in some countries even legitimately by firearms. Privacy, private property and private space are intertwined, demarcated through a variety of objects and signs: from subtle variations of colour and texture to fences and high walls. Those who are in are entitled to be, excluding those who are not. This is an exclusionary process legitimized through public discourse, through custom or law. Violation of this exclusionary process is regarded as, at best, inconvenience and, at worst, crime. Public space, which is one of the manifestations of society's public sphere, is maintained by public agencies in the public interest and is accessible to the public. Access to public space, however, is subject to

exclusionary processes. Public space is guarded from intrusion by private interests, a process which is regarded as essential for the health of the society. Some of the main currents in social and political thought that offer concepts of public space appear to stress the need to keep the public and private spheres distinctive and apart, despite the criticism that this idealizes the distinction.

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The changing nature of development companies and the entry of the finance industry into built environment production and management has partly led to what is widely known as the privatization of space. Large-scale developers and financiers expect their commodities to be safe for investment and maintenance, hence their inclination to reduce as much as possible all the levels of uncertainty which could threaten their interests. This trend is parallel with the increasing fear of crime, rising competition from similar developments, and the rising expectations of the consumers, all encouraging the development of totally managed environments. What has emerged is an urban space where increasingly large sections are managed by private companies, as distinctive from those controlled by public authorities. Examples of these fragmented and privatized spaces are gated neighbourhoods, shopping malls and city centre walkways, under heavy private surveillance and separated from the public realm by controlled access and clear boundaries. This total management of parts of the city is in part an attempt to control crime. Crime acts as a counter-claim to space and as such is itself an exclusionary force, keeping many groups vulnerable and marginalized.

CONCLUSION: SOCIAL INTEGRATION AND SPATIAL FREEDOM

Social exclusion combines lack of access to resources, to decision making, and to common narratives. The

multidimensional phenomenon of social exclusion finds spatial manifestation, in its acute forms, in deprived inner or peripheral urban areas. This spatiality of social exclusion is constructed through the physical organization of space as well as through the social control of space, as ensured by informal codes and signs and formal rules and regulations. These formal channels act at all scales of space. Global space is fragmented by national spaces, which have a tendency to deny difference and homogenize social groups. At the scale of local space, spatialization of social exclusion takes place through land and property markets. These markets tend to fragment, differentiate and commodify space through town planning mechanisms which tend to fragment, rationalize and manage space, and also through the legal and customary distinctions between the public and private spheres, with a constant tension between the two and a tendency for the privatization of space.

To break the trap of socio-spatial exclusion, one strategy could be to challenge these deep-seated forms of differentiation. We know, however, that wholesale challenges can be problematic themselves, as exemplified by attempts to redefine the public-private relationship in Eastern Europe. Furthermore, we know that any human society is likely to have some form of exclusionary process in its constitution. Nevertheless, it is true that the form of these exclusionary processes changes over time. A reflexive revisiting of the processes of differentiation is therefore a constantly necessary task. At the same time what is necessary and urgent is to institute and promote inclusionary processes, to strike a balance between exclusion and integration, to provide the possibility of integration and to break the trap of socio-spatial exclusion. We have seen that space is a major component part of social exclusion. Revisiting spatial barriers and promoting accessibility and more spatial freedom can therefore be the way spatial planning can contribute to promoting social integration.

2. Social Exclusion: Immigrants and Racialized and Religious Minorities

The concept of social exclusion has attracted the attention of scholars as well as policy makers concerned about the emergence of marginal subgroups that may pose a threat to social cohesion in industrial societies (Guildford, 2000; Galabuzi, 2006; Omidvar & Richmond, 2004).

Social exclusion is understood as describing both the structures and the dynamic processes of inequality among groups in society which, over time, structure unequal access to critical resources that determine the quality of membership in society and ultimately produce and reproduce a complex of unequal outcomes (Madinapour, et al. 1998; Byrne, 1999). It is a concept increasingly applied to the condition of racialized groups and those with immigrant status in Canada (Galabuzi, 2006; Labonte, 2004). It is manifested through structural inequalities and unequal outcomes in access to social, economic, political and cultural resources (Galabuzi, 2006).

Social exclusion is maintained by institutional arrangements responsible for according advantages and benefits to some individuals and groups and imposing disadvantages and burdens on others. These tend to build on long-standing processes of social closure that emerge from social relations and institutional social structures, such as social networks, that act to define those who have different identities as the “other” (Razack, 2002).

A related concept is social inclusion which while conceptually in line with the ideal of maintaining social cohesion through meaningful and equal access to the society’s resources, does not necessarily represent a linear progression along a continuum (Lister, 1999; Omidvar & Richmond, 2003; Labonte, 2004; Saloojee, 2005).

Starting in the 1980s, conceptions of social inclusion have attempted to move away from the assimilation orientations of immigrant integration associated with monocultural notions of social cohesion, & to acknowledge the need for both the host society and newcomers to change (Omidvar & Richmond, 2003). Social inclusion is “characterized by a society’s widely shared social experience and active participation, by a broad equality of opportunities and life chances for individuals and by the achievement of a basic level of well-being for all citizens” (Sen, 2001).

In this sense, social inclusion, as both a goal and a process (Omidvar & Richmond, 2003), involves a commitment on the part of dominant groups to bring about the conditions of inclusion¹. Social inclusion is based on removing all barriers to individuals’ opportunities in the labour market, housing and access to social services. Within an inclusive society, free from forms of exclusion, newcomers can actualize their human and cultural capital to their

¹ Laidlaw’s working paper series on social inclusion defines and explores the concept of social inclusion in depth, as a framework to address social policy questions in Canada. The series has identified five critical dimensions of social inclusion: valued recognition, human development, involvement and engagement, proximity and material well-being (Omidvar & Richmond, 2003, p.ix).

full potential. In addition, social inclusion facilitates bridging social capital and horizontal ties in a context where diversity is valued and all groups' values are seen as equally important to the society as a whole.

A sizable body of literature addresses the experience of recent immigrants and the challenges they face in integrating into Canadian life. Despite Canada's official multiculturalism policies, the assumptions of equal access to opportunity cannot be sustained. Implicit and explicit systems of racism and discrimination persist and determine access to opportunities and resources for the largely racialized immigrant population (Reitz & Banarjee, 2006; Henry & Tator, 2000; Ornstein, 2006; Teelucksingh & Galabuzi, 2005; Omidvar & Richmond, 2003). Social exclusion, in its many manifestations, has consequences not just for the groups experiencing the exclusion, but everyone in the society. Omidvar & Richmond (2003) note that:

“Whether the source of exclusion is poverty, racism, fear of difference or lack of political clout, the consequences are the same: a lack of recognition and acceptance; powerlessness and ‘voicelessness;’ economic vulnerability; and and diminished life experiences and limited life prospects. For society as a whole, the social exclusion of individuals and groups can become a major threat to social cohesion and economic prosperity.” (p.viii)

2.1 Social Exclusion And Recent Immigrant Communities

Among others, Pendakur & Pendakur (1996), Picot & Hou, 2003), Ornstein (2000, 2006), Frenette & Morissette (2003), Teelucksingh & Galabuzi (2005) and Reitz & Banerjee (2005) have noted the difficulties that racialized immigrants, in particular, experience with labour market integration. Immigrants arriving in Canada and Peel Region take longer than previous cohorts to gain employment comparable to their human capital investment (Reitz, 2001).

Immigrant exclusion from the labour market leads to such outcomes as high levels of unemployment, underemployment and underutilization of skills (Reitz, 2001; Boyd, 2002; Galabuzi, 2006), as well as problems associated with poverty, including neighbourhood selection and the poor integration of children into school systems (Boyd, 2002; Preston & Giles, 1995).

In part, the underemployment and underutilization of immigrant skills are tied to structural changes resulting from globalization and neo-liberalism², which is resulting in a bifurcated labour force with extremes between the demands for highly paid professional new-economy workers and poorly paid service sector workers. The implications of these difficulties are a disproportionate experience of low income.

² Neo-liberalism is a restatement of classical liberalism, a political ideology of the 19th century which espoused personal freedom and free markets. Neo-liberalism seeks to transfer economic control from the public to the private sector under the belief that it will produce a more efficient government and improve a nation's economy. Its key policies include trade liberalization, deregulation, privatization of state enterprises, and reduced state intervention in the economy.

Siemiatycki & Isin (1997) have elaborated the challenges to civic participation represented by the modes of incorporation recent immigrants are subjected to, along with the centrality of municipal governments in their lives.

Social exclusion reinforces social inequality. Its dimensions include various forms of oppression, such as racism, sexism, religious oppression, anti-Semitism and homophobia that, operating independently or together, maintain the advantages, power and privileges associated with certain social groups, depriving other social groups and limiting their life chances.

- Galabuzi (2006) identifies four aspects of social exclusion:
- Economic exclusion: unequal or lack of access to forms of livelihood.
- Exclusion from civil society: disconnection through legal sanctions, institutional mechanisms or systemic discrimination based on race, ethnicity, gender, disability, sexual orientation or religion.
- Exclusion from social goods: failure of society to provide for the needs of particular groups, such as language services for immigrants and sanctions that deter discrimination.
- Exclusion from social production: denial of opportunity to participate actively in society.

These four aspects highlight the fact that social exclusion is experienced in multiple and reinforcing dimensions. Therefore, individuals and communities who are structurally excluded from the labour market are often also marginalized in terms of adequate housing, education, health care and social services.

In a national survey, Derouin (2003) explored the relationship between discrimination and aspects of social capital in Canada. The sample distinguished between visible minorities, non-visible minorities and the total Canadian population. Social capital was operationalized in terms of: trust and individuals; trust at work and schools; overall satisfaction with life; and sense of belonging (both within and outside of one's own ethnic group). Discrimination was associated with unfair treatment. Key findings from Derouin's (2003) study include:

- Among visible minorities (Chinese, South Asians and Blacks), Blacks were more likely to report having experienced discrimination and/or unfair treatment.
- Respondents who reported having experienced discrimination also reported that they had greater concerns (but not to a large extent) about trusting people – with surprisingly, visible minority status (as an aggregate category) not being a factor.
- Blacks that had experienced discrimination reported being significantly less trusting in comparison with Chinese and South Asian respondents.
- The impact of discrimination played a role in respondents' trust at work and school.

- The relationship between discrimination and the sense of belonging to one's ethnic group was greatest for visible minorities, especially Blacks, then South Asians and Chinese.

Derouin's (2003) results are important for communities with diverse populations, such as Peel, for many reasons. First, the findings highlight the importance of acknowledging the differences between immigrant groups and/or visible minority groups. Second, they point to the various levels in which discrimination or exclusion can negatively affect social cohesion. As Halpern (2005) argues, social capital functions on individual, community and organizational levels. However, due to its systemic nature, the consequences of discrimination have their greatest impact at the institutional level, which could directly affect groups' abilities to access social and economic resources. Lastly, Derouin's (2003) findings suggest a link between exclusion and social capital. Communities with poor relations between host communities and newcomers will encourage intra-ethnic networks as a survival strategy. However, some ethnic communities vary in terms of the quality of the networks they offer their members.

Research shows that, left unattended, conditions of social marginalization persist and have adverse effects on social cohesion, and may lead to forms of social breakdown that could trigger community violence. This is particularly the case in neighbourhoods where marginalization is not based solely on social class, but also on ethnicity or religion. While bringing human and financial capital, skills and creative energy, and social/cultural vitality, immigrant populations have faced challenges to successful integration as measured by such key social indicators as labour market participation, unemployment, ability to translate human capital into comparable employment and income, levels of poverty, health care utilization, contact with the criminal justice system (Gilmore, 2008; Picot & Hou, 2003; Ostrovksy, 2008; Galabuzi, 2006) and civic engagement (Siemiatycki & Isin, 1997). They have increasingly become subject to spatial segregation and exclusion to ethnic enclaves (Halli & Kazimapur, 2000; Qadeer & Kumar, 2003).

According to Picot & Myles (2005), in 1980, the earnings of recent male immigrants working full time for the full year was 84% of that of comparable Canadian-born males. By 2000, it had dropped to 60% (Picot & Myles, 2005; Frenette & Morissette, 2003). This earnings gap is also reflected in low-income rates, with immigrants contending with low income rates 2.5 times those of Canadian-born by 2000 (Picot & Hou, 2003). These patterns in the case of the Region of Peel increasingly determine the experience of local citizenship and belonging for many immigrant communities (Mohanty, 2007; Social Planning Council of Peel, 2005).

During the last two decades, low income increased among successive groups of recent immigrants. In 1980, 24.6% of immigrants who had arrived during the previous five-year period lived below the poverty line. By 1990, the low-income rate among recent immigrants had increased to 31.3%. After peaking at 47.0% in 1995, the rate fell back to 35.8% in 2000. These developments reflected the rise in low income among racialized groups, who made up an average of 75% of new immigrants during the 1990s and early 21st century.

2.2 Social Exclusion, Low Income and Recent Immigrant Communities

“Montreal, Winnipeg, Quebec City, Toronto, Saskatoon, Regina and Vancouver – have large concentrations of racialized group members and immigrants in neighbourhoods with a poverty rate of 40 percent and higher.” (Kazemipur & Halli, 2000)

Social exclusion is increasingly manifest in urban centres, where racialized groups are concentrated through the emergence of racial enclaves and a growing set of racially segregated low income neighbourhoods. Immigrants in Toronto, Vancouver and Montreal are more likely than non-immigrants to live in neighbourhoods with high rates of poverty.

Canada’s urban neighbourhoods have been impacted by the restructuring of the economy as well as immigration patterns over the last quarter century that have established racialized countries as the predominant sources for immigration. As the changing economy has generated a growing gap between rich and poor over the last 25 years, the polarization has been felt in the neighbourhoods. This has been compounded by the fact that urban centres such as Toronto, Vancouver and Montreal are magnets for immigrants, taking in almost 78% of the new immigrants to Canada.

In Canadian urban centres, racialized people are two or three times as likely to be poor compared with other Canadians. This disproportionate and persistent exposure to poverty among racialized groups has been termed the racialization of poverty (Galabuzi, 2006). It is linked to the process of the deepening social exclusion of racialized and immigrant communities. A key contributing factor is the concentration of economic, social and political power and the uneven access to such power for immigrant and racialized communities.

Disproportionate exposure to low income leads to powerlessness, marginalization, voicelessness, vulnerability, insecurity and an inability to participate fully in society or develop a sense of belonging and national or community identity. The various dimensions of the experience of poverty interact in important ways to reproduce and reinforce social exclusion.

According to Mohanty (2007), in 2001, while Peel Region ranked in the middle of the pack in Ontario communities with an incidence of low income at 11.6%, some of the neighbourhoods with the highest concentrations of immigrant and racialized populations, such as Cooksville/Dixie (40%), Malton (69%) or Central Brampton (40%), also suffered above-average rates of low income vulnerability (Cooksville/Dixie, 16.5%; Malton, 20.5% and Central Brampton, 12.7% respectively).

This emerging phenomenon suggests a relationship between poverty, race and immigration status. The experience of low income is concentrated in particular neighbourhoods and communities, often coinciding with a profile of high immigration status and disproportionately more racialized group composition.

It speaks to the intersection between low income and immigrant status and racialization – which both suggest the possible intensification of social exclusion based on low income, race

and immigrant status and the need for a better understanding of what the characteristics and implications might be. This can be achieved through a systematic process of fact finding.

These conditions represent a form of dysfunctional integration that may be difficult to reverse in the long run. The possible institutionalization of forms of social and economic marginalization could undermine the prospects and well-being of entire communities, compromising the promise of equal citizenship. The outcome could be the intensification of a social distance between these communities and the rest of the residents of Peel Region (DeCoito, 2008).

Such processes of social exclusion can morph into structures of inequality among groups in society that, over time, produce unequal access to critical resources that determine the quality of membership in society and ultimately produce and reproduce a complex of unequal outcomes. An added concern relates to the ethnic character of such inequalities and the potential for inter-racial breakdown, as has been experienced in other jurisdictions, particularly the U.S. (Kerner, 1968) and Europe (Scarman, 1986).

In European countries, racially defined riots such as those in Paris, France in 2005 are one form of the manifestation of these forms of social alienation. In Canada, these concerns are reflected in attempts to encourage cross-cultural understanding through multiculturalism-inspired policies at the national, provincial and local municipal levels (Kunz & Sykes, 2007; Reitz & Banerjee, 2006; Clutterbuck & Norvick, 2003).

2.3 Social Exclusion in the Labour Market

In the context of Peel, exclusionary processes within labour market patterns follow the trends experienced by immigrants and racialized groups throughout Canada. Numerous studies have focused on the question of the recent patterns of integration into the labour market for immigrant and racialized groups (Picot & Hou, 2003; Hou & Coulombe, 2003; Frenette & Morissette, 2003; Teelucksingh & Galabuzi, 2005).

Attachment to the labour market is essential to the experience of full citizenship. It is a source of livelihood, identity formation and a sense of belonging. Teelucksingh & Galabuzi's (2005) study examined racial discrimination in the labour market and employment and its impact on the status of racialized group members in the Canadian labour market.

Based on a quantitative analysis of census data, the Survey of Labour and Labour Income Dynamics, and Human Resources and Skills data, they compared both racialized groups to non-racialized groups and examined the change across time from 1996 to 2001 in terms of social indicators such as: rates of poverty; sectoral and occupational concentrations; unemployment and employment rates; and the ability to convert educational attainment into comparable occupational status and compensation.

Teelucksingh & Galabuzi (2005) found that there were ongoing barriers to upward mobility for racialized people summarized in terms of three major findings. First, double-digit income

disparities still exist (13.3% median after tax income). This finding represents an improvement from 1996 when the median after-tax income for racialized persons was 23.2% lower than for non-racialized persons. However, the size of the gap does reflect a persistent under-valuing of the work of racialized persons in the Canadian economy.

Second, the differential rate of unemployment continued to exist, such that participation rates still lag behind the non-racialized population. The 2001 unemployment rates for the total labour force, at 6.7%, in comparison with 12.1% for recent immigrants and 12.6% for visible minorities, indicates a clear differential in access to the labour market. It is taking much longer for racialized immigrants to catch up with other Canadians, in comparison with past European immigrants.

Lastly, labour market segmentation continues because racially defined concentrations exist in certain sectors and occupations. Racialized groups continue to be overrepresented in lower-paying sectors and occupations and underrepresented in higher-paying sectors and occupations. Immigrants and racialized people are also overrepresented in precarious forms of work (Vosko, 2006) and among the working poor (Jackson, 2005). This reflects the growth of precarious employment or non-standard forms of work – part time, contract, seasonal, piece-work, on-call work and self-employment. These forms of work now account for 37% of paid employment in Canada, up from 25% in the 1980s.³ By 2005, nearly half of all low-income families with children (48% or 576,000) worked for only part of the year. Those rates have remained over 40% since the mid-1990s.

Various studies looking at the experience of immigrants, especially internationally educated professionals and tradespeople, suggest strongly that the differential outcomes identified can be attributed to racially discriminatory systemic practices, such as:

- Differential treatment in recruitment, hiring and promotion;
- Extensive reliance on non-transparent forms of recruitment, such as word of mouth, which reproduce and reinforce existing networks;
- Differential valuation or effective devaluation of internationally obtained credentials;
- Use of immigrant status as a proxy for lower quality of human capital.⁴

³ Saunders, R. *Defining Vulnerability in the Labour Market*. (Ottawa: Canadian Policy Research Networks, 2003)

⁴ See Akbari, A., *The Economics of Immigration and Racial Discrimination: A Literature Survey (1970-89)* (Ottawa: Multiculturalism & Citizenship Canada, 1989);

De Silva, A. "Wage Discrimination Against Visible Minority Men in Canada" (Ottawa: Human Development Canada, 1997); Hiebert, D. *The Colour of Work: Labour Market Segmentation in Montréal, Toronto and Vancouver, 1991*. (Vancouver, RIIM, March 1997); Kunz, J.L., Milan, A. & Schetagne, S. *Unequal Access: A Canadian Profile of Racial Differences in Education, Employment and Income* (Toronto: Canadian Race Relations Foundation, 2000)

Social exclusion in the labour market has consequences for racialized peoples and immigrants' livelihoods and their sense of identity and belonging. Social exclusion in the workplace and labour market positions immigrants as outsiders and reduces their ability to develop horizontal ties and social networks due to the social distance it imposes. A commitment to anti-discrimination strategies in the workplace is one step toward addressing forms of economic exclusion. The role for policy to address social exclusion in the labour market includes the need:

- To identify and remove barriers to equitable access to the labour market and to particular workplaces.
- For appropriate policies and programs to ensure a smooth transition for internationally trained professionals and tradespeople into their fields of expertise.

2.4 Social Exclusion and the Social Determinants of Health

A companion paper (submitted to the Region, but not published) by Ilene Hyman addresses the experience of immigrants and health in greater detail. That work and other research identify social exclusion as an important social determinant of health (Hyman, 2001; O'Hare, 2006; Galabuzi, 2002). However, the Canadian health system as a whole has been slow to address the implications of social exclusion experienced by racialized groups and new immigrants with regard to health disparities (Galabuzi, 2002; 2004). From a social determinants of health perspective, Galabuzi (2004) argues that there is a need to take into account the health impacts of not having equal access to social, economic, political and cultural systems that determine the distribution of society's resources due to racial or ethnic characteristics.

The experience of social exclusion can translate into differential health outcomes and the underutilization of health services. Similarly, Noh & Kaspar (2003) suggest that forms of social exclusion as well as institutional racism in the health care system both play a role in explaining why the overall health of immigrants deteriorates over time as immigrants attempt to integrate into Canadian society. According to Galabuzi (2004), addressing inequalities in health and toward social inclusion, requires that the health sector and policy makers consider:

- Increasing access to appropriate health services for immigrants and racialized groups, ones that incorporate culturally sensitive and language-specific services for all health needs, including mental health services.
- Helping immigrants and racialized communities to build support networks within and outside of their communities.
- Training health workers to provide services that are culturally sensitive.
- Hiring workers from racialized groups.
- Supporting ethno-specific service delivery, at least as a transitional measure

2.5 Other Dimensions of Social Exclusion

Research has also found that all members of immigrant families suffer from other dimensions of exclusion. Social exclusion is also reflected in the educational differences experienced by immigrant and racialized students. Davies & Guppy (1998) and others document immigrant and racialized students' struggles relating to rates of drop-out and levels of educational achievement. Students' challenges are linked to their experiences of institutional and cultural discrimination.

Education matters in terms of creating a socially inclusive society since education facilitates both economic and non-economic forms of capital. In a more complex global economy, acquiring educational credentials no longer guarantees employment, but education is essential for broadening opportunities and allowing for expanded social networks. Social exclusion in the Canadian educational systems further disadvantages new immigrant parents who might already be marginalized in terms of language skills and their ability to access social networks that are familiar with the Canadian educational system.

Often times, these multiple layers of discrimination translate into the inability of immigrant parents to advocate for their children's educational needs. Schools system and policy makers can work toward making education accessible to all students in a manner that is free from forms of exclusion. As discussed below, public schools are potential sites for creating new social networks.

Kilbrides (2000) work on the effects of the settlement process for immigrant youth addresses some of the challenges they face. The study highlights the isolation that youth experience related to racism and discrimination and the intergenerational consequences of their parents' challenges in the labour market. It also emphasizes the great need for better language facility for immigrant youth (Kilbride et al. 2000). Gender and age are other factors that affect the nature of the exclusion experience by immigrant youth (Tyyska, 2001).

The experience of social exclusion among religious minorities often leads to alienation and social distance from mainstream society. Religious minorities are marginalized and denied access to the dominant groups' advantages and ideologies, which limits their networks and interactions. In the context of Britain, Cheong et al. (2007) note that British responses to September 11, 2001 have resulted in Asian Muslims, in particular, and other immigrants being subjected to new citizenship practices that seek to narrowly define British identity, as well as assimilation expectations that, in practice, exclude religious and ethnic diversity.

Settlement services play an important role in assisting immigrants to overcome social exclusion by improving access to needed information in ways that are linguistically and culturally appropriate for all members of immigrant families (Omidvar & Richmond, 2003). Omidvar & Richmond (2003, p.7) and Reitz (1998) also identify that the provision of social services is essential to maintaining the public's support of high levels of immigration.

Thus, it is crucial for Peel to continue to make newcomers aware of the range of initiatives available to support recent immigrants both within the Region of Peel's Human Services department, such as The Peel Newcomer Strategy Group and the Peel Immigrant Web Portal, as well as services provided by agencies in the Region. These initiatives, in addition to providing valuable information, also provide avenues to expand the newcomers' social networks by connecting them with a range of stakeholders in the community. In this manner, settlement services can attempt to address inequalities in access to resources that may exist in some marginalized ethnic communities.

However, there are two important challenges facing settlement services in overcoming exclusion and fostering inclusion. As Saloojee (2003) asserts, even where social inclusion frameworks exist, there is still a need to engage with anti-racism perspectives in order to address the weaknesses associated with multiculturalism. An anti-racism perspective includes questioning structures of privilege and the need for all social groups to have access to power and decision-making processes. In this sense, immigrant and racialized groups should be equal partners in the community in terms of mandates and programs associated with settlement services.

Second, settlement services are often vulnerable to cutbacks, concurrent with an increase in demand for these same services. In this context, immigrant serving agencies are turning to a combination of sources of support (Omidvar & Richmond, 2003; Mwarigha, 2002). Therefore, there is progressively more need to build on the alliances across settlement service providers. In many cases, multistakeholder collaborative efforts already exist between and across Regional municipal departments, other levels of government and jurisdictions, and with businesses and non-governmental organizations.

2.6 Summary

In this section, we have considered the fact that social exclusions are experienced in multiple and reinforcing dimensions. We have also argued that:

- Structurally, social exclusion is a reflection of the uneven access to power for immigrants and racialized and religious minorities, which compromises equal citizenship.
- In Peel Region, the role of policy to address social exclusion and foster horizontal ties and social networks is to implement strategies that counter forms of social exclusions at the level of individuals, communities and institutions. Programs and policies that seek to improve the distributions of the society's resources, such as better access to the labour market, housing and education, will also improve marginalized residents' sense of identity and belonging.

At the same time, it is important to acknowledge that immigrants and racialized and religious minorities in Peel Region should not be exclusively framed as socially, economically and politically deprived. Rather, lessons can be learned from examples of social inclusion and attempts to address power inequalities.

For instance, some ethnic minorities in Peel Region have successfully used social capital to elect racialized representatives at both the provincial and federal levels (Siemiatycki, Matheson & Bagga, 2005). If enhanced, diverse political representation in Peel has the ability to foster both bonding and bridging social networks.

The next section examines components of the social bonds within immigrant and ethnic communities, which are also important in assisting immigrants in the settlement process.